
Modern Algebra 1

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Problem 1

Solution. For convenience, let I always denote the 2×2 identity matrix within this problem, and let $H := \{\alpha I \mid \alpha \in \mathbb{Z}_n \wedge \gcd(n, \alpha^2) = 1\}$.

First, we show that $H \subseteq Z(\text{GL}_2(\mathbb{Z}_n))$. Let $A \in \text{GL}_2(\mathbb{Z}_n)$, and let $\alpha \in \mathbb{Z}_n$. It follows that

$$(\alpha I)A = \alpha(IA) = \alpha A = A\alpha = (AI)\alpha = A(I\alpha) = A(\alpha I).$$

Thus, for all $A \in \text{GL}_2(\mathbb{Z}_n)$, $\alpha IA = A\alpha I$. Therefore, $H \subseteq Z(\text{GL}_2(\mathbb{Z}_n))$.

Now, we show the converse. Let

$$A = \begin{bmatrix} a & b \\ c & d \end{bmatrix}, \quad B = \begin{bmatrix} e & f \\ g & h \end{bmatrix}.$$

It follows that

$$AB = \begin{bmatrix} ae + bg & af + bh \\ ce + dg & cf + dh \end{bmatrix}, \quad BA = \begin{bmatrix} ae + cf & be + df \\ ag + ch & bg + dh \end{bmatrix}.$$

We want $AB = BA$. This is true if and only if

$$\begin{aligned} ae + bg &= ae + cf \\ af + bh &= be + df \\ ce + dg &= ag + ch \\ cf + dh &= bg + dh. \end{aligned}$$

Since the only terms present on both sides of an equation are ae and dh , this will **not** be true in general unless $b, c = 0$. We then have

$$\begin{bmatrix} ae & af \\ dg & dh \end{bmatrix} = \begin{bmatrix} ae & df \\ ag & dh \end{bmatrix}.$$

From this, it follows that $ag = dg$, and thus $a = d$. Therefore, $A = \alpha I$, and $Z(\text{GL}_2(\mathbb{Z}_n)) \subseteq H$.

Therefore, $Z(\text{GL}_2(\mathbb{Z}_n)) = H$.

□

Problem 2

Solution. This was easy, in fact we did an example of this last homework. Let $G = \{e, a, b, c\}$ be a group with identity e . Let $a^2 = b^2 = c^2 = e$, and let $ab = ba = c$. It follows that $bc = cb = a$ and $ac = ca = b$. We give the following Cayley table to help with this visualization.

$\cdot$	e	a	b	c
e	e	a	b	c
a	a	e	c	b
b	b	c	e	a
c	c	b	a	e

An equivalent group up to isomorphism is the subgroup $\{R_0, R_{180}, S, R_{180}S\}$ of the dihedral group D_n for an even integer n .

The group is clearly not cyclic. It has 4 elements, none of which generate the group. Since $a^2 = b^2 = c^2 = e$, we have

$$\langle a \rangle = \{e, a\},$$

$$\langle b \rangle = \{e, b\},$$

$$\langle c \rangle = \{e, c\}.$$

Therefore, the set is not cyclic. Additionally, these sets and the set $\{e\}$ are the only possible cyclic subgroups of G , which is obvious since they are the sets generated by each element of G . It remains to be shown no other subgroups of G exist.

Let $H \subsetneq G$ have more than 2 elements. Since any set must have the identity element in it, we have already seen all the subgroups of G with 2 or less elements. They are exactly the cyclic subgroups of G . We must only consider sets with more than 2 but less than 4 elements. In other words, we must consider sets with only 3 elements. All of these sets, in order to be groups, must have the identity element, so they must have exactly 2 non-identity elements a , b , or c in them. Since $ab = ba = c$, $bc = cb = a$, and $ca = ac = b$, none of these sets would be closed under group multiplication. Thus, there exist no proper subgroups of G other than the cyclic subgroups. $\square$

Problem 3

Let $\langle a \rangle$ a group with order n , and let $d|n$. Show there are $\phi(d)$ elements of a with order d .

Solution. The fundamental theorem of finite cyclic groups guarantees for every divisor d of n , there exists a unique group $\langle a^{n/d} \rangle$ of order d . We must show that this subgroup has $\phi(d)$ generators. Let k be relatively prime to d , and notice that $a^{(n/d)k} \in \langle a^{n/d} \rangle$. Since the order of this group is d , we have the order of $a^{(n/d)k}$ in $\langle a^{n/d} \rangle$ is

$$\left| a^{(n/d)k} \right| = \frac{d}{\gcd(d, k)}.$$

Since $\gcd(d, k) = 1$, we have $\left| a^{(n/d)k} \right| = d$. Therefore, for any k relatively prime to d , there exists an element $a^{(n/d)k}$ with order d . Therefore, the number of elements with order d are simply the number of numbers relatively prime to d ; that is, $\phi(d)$. $\square$

Problem 4

Solution. Let G be a group with identity e . Let $a, b \in G$ such that $|a| = n$, $|b| = m$, and $\gcd(n, m) = 1$.

Let there exist some $g \in \langle a \rangle$ such that $g \in \langle b \rangle$. Since $g \in \langle a \rangle$, there must exist some $k \in \mathbb{Z}$ such that $g = a^k$. Since $\langle b \rangle$ is a group and thus closed under multiplication, any power of a^k must be an element of $\langle b \rangle$. Thus, we have

$$\langle a^k \rangle \subseteq \langle b \rangle.$$

By the fundamental theorem of cyclic subgroups, we know that $|\langle a^k \rangle|$ will divide m . Additionally, by the same logic $\langle a^k \rangle \subseteq \langle a \rangle$, so $|\langle a^k \rangle|$ must also divide n . Since m and n are relatively prime, the only number that divides both m and n is 1, and thus $|\langle a^k \rangle| = 1$. It follows from this that $a^k = e$. Therefore, $g \in \langle a \rangle$ and $g \in \langle b \rangle$ implies $g = e$. This should suffice to show $\langle a \rangle \cap \langle b \rangle = \{e\}$. $\square$

Problem 5

Solution. Let $a \in G$. The set $C(a)$ is the set of all $g \in G$ such that $ga = ag$. We need only show $\langle a \rangle \subseteq C(a)$. Since $a^k \in \langle a \rangle$ for any $k \in \mathbb{Z}$, we have

$$a(a^k) = a(a^{k-1}a) = (aa^{k-1})a = a^ka.$$

Therefore, for any $a^k \in \langle a \rangle$, $a^ka = aa^k$. Thus, $\langle a \rangle \subseteq C(a)$. $\square$